

Are We Mapping Ecosystems or Models? Framework Choices Dominate Food Web Topology and Extinction Inferences

Tanya Strydom ^{1*}, Baran Karapınar ², Jennifer A. Dunne ³,
Pincelli M. Hull ⁵, Crispin T.S. Little ², Catalina Pimiento ^{6,7},
Andy Ridgwell ⁴, Andrew P. Beckerman ¹, Alexander M.
Dunhill ²

¹ School of Biosciences, University of Sheffield, Sheffield, UK, S10 2TN

² School of Earth, Environment and Sustainability, University of Leeds, Leeds, UK, LS2 9JT

³ Santa Fe Institute, 1399 Hyde Park Road, Santa Fe, NM 87501, USA

⁴ Department of Earth and Planetary Sciences, University of California, Riverside, CA, USA

⁵ Department of Earth & Planetary Sciences, Yale University, New Haven, CT, USA

⁶ Department of Paleontology, University of Zurich, Zurich, Switzerland

⁷ Biosciences Department, Swansea University, Swansea SA28PP, UK

*Correspondence: t.strydom@sheffield.ac.uk

Abstract: Aim

Ecological networks are widely used to assess community structure, stability, and responses to disturbance. Such networks often require model-based reconstructions; however, the extent to which these frameworks influence ecological inference remains unexplored. Here, we assess whether macroecological inference derived from ecological networks is robust to variation in reconstruction framework.

Location

Cleveland Basin, United Kingdom.

Time period

Toarcian extinction event (Early Jurassic, late Pliensbachian–late Toarcian, ~183 Ma).

Major taxa studied

Marine macrofossils.

Methods

We reconstructed four successive assemblages from an identical species pool using six contrasting food web reconstruction approaches spanning feasible (trait-based), realised (allometric and energetic), and structural (topological) network representations. For each community and reconstruction approach, 100 replicate networks were generated. We quantified several network properties and assessed differences among reconstruction approaches using multivariate analyses. Pairwise interaction turnover was measured using link-based beta diversity. We then simulated species extinctions under multiple disturbance scenarios, allowing cascading extinctions, and compared predicted community states using mean absolute differences and rank concordance metrics between reconstruction approaches.

Results

Reconstruction framework strongly influenced inferred network topology, generating distinct structural signatures independent of species composition. Reconstruction approaches that were similar in network metrics often diverged in species-level interactions, with high -turnover among inferred link sets. During extinction simulations, scenario rankings were broadly consistent at the network level, but interaction-level outcomes and cascade dynamics varied substantially.

Main conclusions

Network reconstruction functions as a structural prior that conditions ecological inference. While some aggregate patterns are robust across reconstruction approaches, detailed interaction-level dynamics are highly contingent on reconstruction approach. Comparative network studies across spatial or environmental gradients should therefore align reconstruction framework with inferential goals and explicitly evaluate sensitivity to reconstruction assumptions.

Keywords: Network reconstruction, Macroecology, Ecological networks, Interaction turnover, Trophic organisation, Palaeoecology, Ecosystem resilience

1 Introduction

Understanding how biological communities are organised and how species interact with each other is a central goal of ecology. While early efforts focused primarily on species richness and composition, there is growing recognition that ecological communities are structured not only by which species occur, but by how they interact (Thuiller *et al.*, 2024). Interaction networks are increasingly treated as macroecological state variables where they are used to compare community organisation across environmental gradients, quantify β -diversity in interaction structure, evaluate stability–complexity relationships, and infer vulnerability under global change (Poisot *et al.*, 2015; Trøjelsgaard & Olesen, 2016; Tylianakis & Morris, 2017; Gravel *et al.*, 2019).

As a result, ecological networks now play a central role in comparative analyses spanning latitudinal gradients, disturbance regimes, and deep time environmental transitions (Roopnarine, 2006; Poisot & Gravel, 2014; Michalska-Smith & Allesina, 2019; Dunhill *et al.*, 2024; Hao *et al.*, 2025). Implicit in this expansion is the critical assumption that network properties estimated across systems using various models are structurally comparable, and that differences among network properties reflect ecological signal rather than methodological artefact (Fründ *et al.*, 2016; Jordano, 2016). However, most ecological networks are not fully observed as interaction data are incomplete and sampling is uneven across historical and biogeographic contexts, across both present day and deep time (Poisot *et al.*, 2021; Sandra *et al.*, 2025).

Interactions must often be inferred indirectly from traits (*e.g.*, body size), phylogeny, co-occurrence, or theoretical constraints (Morales-Castilla *et al.*, 2015; Strydom *et al.*, 2021). Network construction therefore constitutes a model-based inference step rather than a purely observational exercise. Different reconstruction frameworks encode distinct ecological assumptions about how interactions arise - whether as biologically feasible combinations of traits, energetically optimised realised diets, or topological structures. These assumptions act as structural priors over network architecture (Petchey *et al.*, 2011; Guimarães, 2020; Gauzens *et al.*, 2025; Strydom *et al.*, 2026) and begs the question if alternative reconstruction approaches systematically generate different trophic configurations. Risking conflating ecological differences among communities with artefacts introduced by reconstruction choice. The reliability of macroecological inference therefore depends not only on ecological data, but on the structural assumptions embedded in network reconstruction approaches.

34 Despite rapid methodological development in interaction inference, few studies have directly
35 evaluated how alternative approaches to constructing networks influence macroecological
36 conclusions when applied to the same species pool. This gap is particularly consequential
37 for comparative research, where network metrics are routinely interpreted as indicators of
38 environmental filtering, disturbance intensity, evolutionary history, or community stability
39 (Allesina & Tang, 2012; Poisot *et al.*, 2015; Delmas *et al.*, 2018) and begs the question if
40 reconstruction approaches encode distinct structural constraints over interaction topology,
41 then differences among communities may reflect reconstruction assumptions rather than
42 ecological processes.

43 Deep time ecosystems provide an especially useful test of this issue because trophic
44 interactions are not observed directly and must be inferred from traits, co-occurrence, and
45 theoretical constraints [Dunne *et al.* (2008); Dunne *et al.* (2014); Dunhill *et al.* (2024);
46 Roopnarine (2006); ; Smith *et al.* (2025)]. As a result, ecological networks in these systems
47 are inherently reconstruction-dependent, rendering the assumptions embedded within
48 different reconstruction frameworks both explicit and consequential. Among such systems,
49 the Early Toarcian Extinction Event (ETEE; ~183 Ma) provides a particularly informative
50 case study. The ETEE was a major Early Jurassic biotic crisis associated with rapid
51 climatic warming, widespread marine oxygen depletion, and substantial ecological turnover
52 (Kemp *et al.*, 2024). Although considered a second-order extinction event globally, it
53 nevertheless resulted in the loss of approximately 26% of marine genera worldwide (Little
54 & Benton, 1995). Ecological disruption was especially severe in shallow marine ecosystems,
55 where environmental stress drove extensive restructuring of benthic communities and food
56 webs. In the Cleveland Basin of Yorkshire, the ETEE caused the extinction of around
57 60% of marine species, including up to 87% of benthic taxa (Caswell *et al.*, 2009). Fossil
58 assemblages from this interval therefore record both the collapse of established communities
59 and the subsequent recovery and reassembly of marine ecosystems under rapidly changing
60 environmental conditions. Recent work has shown that the event selectively impacted
61 specialist and infaunal organisms, leading to simplified ecosystems increasingly dominated
62 by ecological generalists and opportunistic taxa (Dunhill *et al.*, 2024). These changes were
63 accompanied by major shifts in community structure, trophic interactions, and ecosystem
64 connectivity, with evidence suggesting that ecological recovery following the extinction
65 was both prolonged and uneven across marine habitats.

66 Ecological networks have previously been used to infer patterns of community organisation

and extinction dynamics across this transition, providing an ideal test case for evaluating the robustness of network-based inferences of community response. Recent work by Dunhill *et al.* (2024) has used reconstructed food webs to draw ecological conclusions about community stability and collapse during this event. This creates a rare opportunity to ask a more general question - to what extent are such inferences contingent on the specific reconstruction framework used to generate the network?

Here, we reconstruct ecological networks for four successive assemblages across the ETEE using six contrasting reconstruction frameworks spanning feasibility-based, realised, and structural models. Holding species composition constant while varying only the reconstruction approach allows us to explicitly evaluate whether conclusions drawn from a single reconstruction approach (such as those of Dunhill *et al.* (2024)) are robust to alternative, equally plausible representations of interaction structure, or whether different reconstruction choices would lead to fundamentally different ecological inferences. More broadly, our study tests whether macroecological conclusions derived from ecological networks reflect underlying biological processes or are conditioned by the assumptions embedded within the reconstruction framework itself.

2 Methods

2.1 Study system and fossil data

We used fossil occurrence data from the Cleveland Basin, UK, spanning the late Pliensbachian to the late Toarcian. This interval encompasses a major volcanic-driven hyperthermal and marine extinction event. To capture network dynamics across this transition, we defined four successive palaeo-assemblages: pre-extinction (Pliensbachian), post-extinction (early Toarcian), early recovery (early–middle Toarcian) and late recovery (late Toarcian). Each taxon was characterised using their size and Bambach’s ecospace framework (Bambach *et al.*, 2007), coding for tiering, motility, and feeding mode as per Dunhill *et al.* (2024). Each assemblage was treated as a community of potentially interacting taxa. The dataset includes 57 taxa across diverse groups (*e.g.*, cephalopods, bivalves, and gastropods). See Dunhill *et al.* (2024) for detailed descriptions of the dataset, including taxonomic composition, trait coding, and temporal resolution.

2.2 Network reconstruction approaches

2.2.1 Conceptual classification of network types

Ecological network reconstruction encompasses a range of approaches that differ in how trophic interactions are inferred and in the ecological assumptions they encode. These approaches can be broadly grouped into three classes: feasibility-based, realised, and structural models. Together, these classes represent distinct hypotheses about how interactions arise and constrain the space of possible food web structure (Strydom *et al.*, 2026).

Feasibility-based models infer the set of potential interactions among species based on trait compatibility or mechanistic rules. These approaches define a feasible interaction space by identifying which consumer–resource pairs are biologically possible, without specifying which interactions are realised in each community. In palaeoecological contexts, where direct observation of interactions is not possible, such models provide a biologically grounded, formalised representation, of expert knowledge based rules that can be used to infer interactions (*e.g.*, Fricke *et al.* (2022); Roopnarine (2006); Shaw *et al.* (2024)).

Realised models aim to approximate the subset of interactions that are expected to occur in practice. These approaches impose additional constraints (such as energetic optimisation, mechanical limits, or probabilistic niche structure) on top of feasibility, thereby generating networks that represent putative realised diets (Brose *et al.*, 2006; Schneider *et al.*, 2016). Although often parameterised using body size or related traits, realised models differ in their underlying ecological assumptions about how consumers select resources and how trophic interactions are structured.

Structural models, in contrast, do not attempt to reconstruct empirical trophic interactions from species-level data. Instead, they generate networks based on general topological constraints such as species richness, connectance, or trophic ordering (Allesina *et al.*, 2008). These models are species-agnostic and therefore cannot be interpreted as reconstructions of specific ecological communities. Rather, they have the potential to serve as ‘null hypotheses’, providing reference expectations against which the structure and dynamics of data-informed reconstructions can be evaluated.

In this study, we selected models to span these three conceptual classes (Table 1) to sample distinct mechanistic interpretations of trophic interactions rather than exhaustively include all available implementations. Specifically, we include: a feasibility-based model

(PFWIM), representing trait-constrained interactions; multiple realised models (ADBM, ATN, and Body-size ratio), capturing energetic optimisation, mechanical constraints, and probabilistic allometric structure, respectively; and structural models (Random and Niche), providing theoretical reference points. Notably some approaches share common inputs (*e.g.*, body mass for ADBM, ATN, and Body-size ratio), they encode fundamentally different assumptions about how interactions arise. Additionally, although other feasibility-based approaches exist (*e.g.*, Roopnarine (2006)), they are conceptually similar to PFWIM in that they infer interactions from biologically feasible consumer–resource combinations. We therefore selected PFWIM as a representative feasibility-based framework because it formalises these rules in a transferable model that can be parameterised across datasets, rather than relying on system-specific expert assignment of links.

Table 1: Six different network reconstruction approaches that can be used to construct food webs for both this specific community but are also broadly suited to palaeo network prediction. These reconstruction approaches span all facets of the network representation space (feasibility, realised, and structural network).

Recon- struction Approach	Assump- tions	Data needs	Limita- tion	Network type	Key reference	Usage examples
Random	Links assigned randomly	Species richness, number of links	Parameter assump- tions, species agnostic	Structural	Erdős & Rényi (1959)	Null- model compar- isons; testing whether observed network structure (con- nectance, motifs) deviates from random expecta- tions
Niche	Species ordered along a ‘niche axis’; in- teractions interval- constrained	Species richness, con- nectance	Parameter assump- tions, species agnostic	Structural	Williams & Martinez (2008)	Evaluat- ing trophic hierarchy and motif structure; baseline structural predic- tions

Recon- struction Approach	Assump- tions	Data needs	Limita- tion	Network type	Key reference	Usage examples
Allometric diet breadth model (ADBM)	Energy- maximizing predator diets	Body mass, abun- dance/biomass	Assumes optimal foraging; does not account for forbidden links	Realised	Petchey <i>et al.</i> (2008)	Predicting realized predator diets; exploring secondary extinc- tions
Allometric trophic network (ATN)	Links con- strained by body-size ratios and functional response	Body mass, number of basal species	Assumes only mechani- cal/ener- getic con- straints	Realised	Brose <i>et al.</i> (2006); Gauzens <i>et al.</i> (2023)	Simulat- ing species loss; evaluating network collapse dynamics
Paleo food web inference model (PFWIM)	Interac- tions inferred using trait- based mechanis- tic rules	Feeding traits	Assumes feeding mecha- nisms; trait resolution required	Feasibility	Shaw <i>et al.</i> (2024)	Mapping feasible trophic in- teractions; assessing secondary extinc- tions

Recon- struction Approach	Assump- tions	Data needs	Limita- tion	Network type	Key reference	Usage examples
Body-size ratio model	Probabilis- tic assign- ment of links based on predator- prey size ratios	Body mass	Does not account for forbidden links	Realised	Rohr <i>et al.</i> (2010)	Estimat- ing likely interac- tions; simulating cascading effects.

139 This classification allows us to distinguish variation arising from ecological assumptions
140 embedded in reconstruction frameworks from variation attributable to species composition.
141 By comparing networks generated from the same species pool across these complementary
142 model classes, we explicitly evaluate how different representations of interaction structure
143 condition ecological inference.

144 2.2.2 Network generation and replication

145 We evaluated six network reconstruction frameworks using the approaches listed in Table 1,
146 expanded descriptions of reconstruction approach assumptions, parameterisation, and link-
147 generation rules are provided in Supplementary Material S1, including full mathematical
148 formulations and parameter definitions. For each community, 100 stochastic network
149 realisations were generated per reconstruction approach ($n = 2400$ in total, 600 per
150 time bin). Where reconstruction approaches required species body mass or trait values,
151 these were uniformly sampled within the different size classes. We adopted a uniform
152 sampling by default, as alternative distributions (lognormal, truncated lognormal) have
153 negligible impact on topology (Supplementary Material S1; Figure S1). Random and Niche
154 models were parameterised using connectance values drawn from an empirically realistic
155 range (0.05–0.25; Curtsdotter *et al.* (2011)). For the Random model, which requires link
156 number explicitly, connectance (Co) was first converted to expected link number (L) using
157 $L = Co \times S^2$, ensuring consistency in network density across all reconstruction approaches.
158 Richness (S) was determined by the number of species for each time bin. For the Body-size

ratio model, we followed the approach of Yeakel *et al.* (2014) using only the body-mass scaling to determine links between species. Sensitivity of network structure to these parameter choices is evaluated in Supplementary Material S1. The PFWIM generates a deterministic feasible metaweb for a given trait configuration. To allow for statistical analyses we introduced variation by applying a downsampling procedure that prunes links (Roopnarine, 2006). This step allowed us to introduce statistical variation while still preserving most of the metaweb structure. The choice of downsampling parameter and its effects on network structure are evaluated in Supplementary Material S1.

2.3 Network metrics and structural analyses

We quantified network structure using a suite of network metrics Table 2, capturing overall network properties, motif structure, and species-level variability. Differences among reconstruction approaches were assessed using a multivariate analysis of variance (MANOVA), with reconstruction approach identity as a fixed factor and the full set of network metrics as response variables. Variance partitioning was further assessed using permutational multivariate analysis of variance (PERMANOVA). Pairwise interaction turnover was quantified using link-based β -diversity and was calculated following the framework of Poisot *et al.* (2012) among the four of the reconstruction frameworks (ADBM, ATN, body-size ratio, and PFWIM). Random and Niche models were excluded because they are species-agnostic reconstruction approaches that generate networks matching broad topological properties (*e.g.*, connectance and degree distributions) rather than predicting biologically realistic species-specific interactions. Specifically, we looked at interaction rewiring among shared species (β_{OS} , see S1 for additional details on the decomposition of interaction β -diversity and its implementation), which allows separation of differences arising from altered interaction identities among species common to both networks. Because all networks within a given assemblage are constructed from the same species pool, differences in interaction structure primarily reflect ‘rewiring’ of trophic links due to stochasticity in the reconstruction approach rather than species turnover. All calculations were performed for all reconstruction combinations within the same assemblage (time bin).

Table 2: Network properties used for analysis as well as a brief description of how they are derived.

Metric	Definition	Reference
Connectance	L/S^2 , where S is the number of species and L the number of links	Williams & Martinez (2004)
Maximum trophic level	Prey-weighted trophic level averaged across taxa	Williams & Martinez (2004)
No. of linear chains (S1)	Number of linear chains, normalised by L/S	Milo <i>et al.</i> (2002); Stouffer <i>et al.</i> (2007)
No. of omnivory motifs (S2)	Number of omnivory motifs, normalised by L/S	Milo <i>et al.</i> (2002); Stouffer <i>et al.</i> (2007)
No. of apparent competition motifs (S4)	Number of apparent competition motifs, normalised by L/S	Milo <i>et al.</i> (2002); Stouffer <i>et al.</i> (2007)
No. of direct competition motifs (S5)	Number of direct competition motifs, normalised by L/S	Milo <i>et al.</i> (2002); Stouffer <i>et al.</i> (2007)
Generality	Standard deviation of normalised generality of all species within network, normalised by L/S	Williams & Martinez (2000)
Vulnerability	Standard deviation of normalised vulnerability of all species within network, normalised by L/S	Williams & Martinez (2000)

2.4 Extinction simulations and their evaluation

Following Dunhill *et al.* (2024), we simulated species loss from pre-extinction networks under trait-based, network-position-based, and random removal scenarios. Species were deleted sequentially, with cascading secondary extinctions allowed to propagate. Simulated post-extinction states were compared to observed (*i.e.*, reconstructed from fossil occurrence data) networks using mean absolute differences (MAD) of food web metrics (Table 2)

and modified true skill statistics (TSS) calculated separately at the node level (species presence/absence) and link level (presence/absence of interactions between species pairs). Scenarios were ranked within each reconstruction framework based on MAD and TSS performance, and Kendall’s rank correlation coefficient (τ) was used to quantify agreement in scenario ordering across reconstruction approaches. Detailed implementation of extinction sequences and secondary extinction rules is provided in Supplementary Material S1.

2.5 Software and Reproducibility

Ecological network reconstruction and extraction of structural metrics were conducted in Julia v1.11.4 (Bezanson *et al.*, 2017) using the model implementations provided in Supplementary Material S1. All statistical analyses, including MANOVA, PERMANOVA, and post hoc comparisons, were performed in R v4.5.2 (R Core Team, 2024). The full analytical workflow, including data preprocessing, network generation, extinction simulations, and metric calculation, is fully reproducible from the archived codebase.

3 Results

We found that different reconstruction approaches, even those that appeared structurally similar, yielded fundamentally different ecological inferences. Across six reconstruction approaches, inferred food web structure, species interactions, and extinction dynamics differed consistently. Multivariate analyses showed pronounced separation among reconstruction approaches in network metric space (Figure 1), with reconstruction approach explaining most of the variance in structural properties (Figure 2). Notably, approaches that were statistically similar in multivariate structural space often diverged in inferred interactions (Figure 3) or extinction dynamics (Figure 4), demonstrating that structural similarity does not guarantee concordance in species-level diets or inferred behaviour of the system.

Reconstruction approach substantially influenced inferred extinction dynamics. Temporal trajectories of network collapse, interaction loss, and motif reorganisation differed among approaches (Figure 2). Although node-level extinction rankings were often broadly consistent, link-level outcomes and extinction inferences were highly sensitive to reconstruction assumptions (Figure 4). Together, these results show that ecological inferences drawn from networks depend critically on the reconstruction framework used.

3.1 Network structure differs among reconstruction approaches

Across six reconstruction approaches, network structure (network properties listed in Table 2) differed significantly (MANOVA, Pillai’s trace = 3.84, approximate $F_{40,11955} = 987.35$, $p < 0.001$), indicating that the reconstruction approach systematically alters inferred food web topology. Linear discriminant (LD) analysis identified two dominant axes of variation, explaining 86% of the differences between reconstruction approach. LD1 axis correlated with vulnerability, direct competition motifs, and connectance. LD2 axis correlated with maximum trophic level and apparent competition motifs, reflecting vertical trophic structure (Figure 1; Table S1, Figure S1). The higher-order variates explained less than 9% of the remaining variance.

[Figure 1 about here.]

3.1.1 Variance partitioning of network structure

Permutational multivariate analysis of variance (PERMANOVA) revealed that reconstruction framework accounted for most of the variation in multivariate network structure ($R^2 = 0.795$, $p < 0.001$), whereas temporal turnover across extinction phases explained a comparatively small proportion of variance ($R^2 = 0.064$, $p < 0.001$). The reconstruction approach $\times$ time interaction contributed a further 7.1% of variance ($R^2 = 0.071$, $p < 0.001$), indicating limited but significant time-dependent divergence among reconstruction frameworks. Thus, differences among reconstruction approaches were more than an order of magnitude greater than structural differences associated with ecological turnover through the extinction sequence, even though the Pliensbachian–Toarcian dataset was characterised with a significant community turnover.

To determine whether the dominance of the reconstruction framework reflected absolute mean shifts among time bins, we repeated the analysis after centring network metrics within each extinction phase. This procedure removes between-phase differences while retaining within-phase structural variation. Even after temporal bin-standardised centring, the reconstruction framework explained 84.8% of multivariate variance ($R^2 = 0.848$, $p < 0.001$). These results demonstrate that the influence of reconstruction approach is not driven by temporal mean differences but reflects intrinsic divergence among reconstruction frameworks in how ecological interactions are organised.

3.1.2 Statistical Drivers of Network Variation

To identify which specific structural properties drive the multivariate separation observed above, we partitioned variance at the level of individual network metrics. Results show that reconstruction choice had a significantly stronger influence on network topology than the ecological signal of species loss. In panel A of Figure 2 for certain network metrics reconstruction approaches predict different responses across time (*e.g.*, connectance), as well as differing magnitudes of change (*e.g.*, the number of apparent competition motifs). A two-way factorial ANOVA across all eight network metrics confirmed that the reconstruction approach was the dominant driver of variance, with partial eta-squared values (η_p^2) consistently exceeding 0.82 and reaching 0.97 for motifs (Figure 2, panel B; Table S3). While the extinction event (time bin) significantly altered network structure ($p < 0.001$), its relative importance remained secondary, typically explaining a smaller fraction of the total topological variation. This is clear in panel B of Figure 2 where all metrics are within the bottom-right (reconstruction approach-dominated) triangle (below the dashed line), emphasising that framework assumptions outweigh the ecological signal of species loss. Furthermore, the high inter-reconstruction approach Coefficient of Variation (CV) observed for some metrics (Table S4, Figure S4) highlights a sensitivity. The properties that are influenced by time are also those upon which the reconstruction approaches disagree most profoundly. Demonstrating that our understanding of structural food web collapse in the fossil record is highly contingent on the chosen reconstruction framework, particularly when examining complex trophic pathways beyond simple macro-scale properties like connectance.

[Figure 2 about here.]

3.1.3 Inferred pairwise interactions vary widely among reconstruction approaches

Despite some network reconstruction approaches showing similar network metrics, specific pairwise interactions often differed. Pairwise β_{OS} revealed that certain reconstruction approach pairs shared very few links (Figure 3). Size-based models (ADBM, ATN) were broadly similar due to shared sole reliance on body-size constraints, whereas the Body-size ratio model exhibited consistently higher differences to other reconstruction approaches. PFWIM showed intermediate overlap with body mass-based models. These results demonstrate that agreement in overall network structure does not guarantee

286 agreement in species-level interactions.

287 [Figure 3 about here.]

288 **3.2 Reconstruction approach choice influences inferred extinction** 289 **dynamics**

290 To evaluate how reconstruction approach choice affects inferred extinction dynamics, we
291 compared simulated post-extinction networks to observed networks using mean absolute
292 differences (MAD) for network-level metrics and true skills statistics (TSS) for node- and
293 link-level outcomes (Figure 4). Across reconstruction approaches, MAD-based rankings
294 were generally positively correlated (Kendall’s $\tau = 0.13$ across structural metrics), indi-
295 cating weak but generally positive agreement on the relative importance of extinction
296 drivers despite substantial differences in reconstructed network structure. However, agree-
297 ment within the allometric models (ADMB, ATN) differed from patterns observed for
298 reconstructed network structure.

299 Node-level TSS rankings were similarly consistent across network reconstruction approaches
300 (Kendall’s $\tau = 0.26 - 0.90$), reflecting broadly comparable node-level removal sequences.
301 In contrast, link-level outcomes were far more variable (Kendall’s $\tau = -0.48 - 0.29$),
302 highlighting that inferences about which interactions are lost or retained during collapse
303 and recovery are highly reconstruction approach contingent. Together, these results
304 suggest that while alternative reconstruction approaches converge on similar species-level
305 extinction patterns, the inferred pathways of interaction loss and cascading dynamics
306 depend strongly on reconstruction approaches.

307 [Figure 4 about here.]

308 **4 Discussion**

309 **4.1 Network reconstruction is not neutral: structural priors shape** 310 **ecological theory**

311 Food web ecology has long treated network reconstruction as a methodologically neutral
312 step preceding ecological analysis, with limited attention to how methodological choices
313 might influence outcomes. Once assembled, network properties are generally interpreted as
314 reflections of underlying ecological organisation. This workflow assumes that reconstructed

315 networks provide structurally comparable representations of ecological communities. Con-
316 sequently, differences in connectance, trophic structure, motif composition, or robustness
317 are typically interpreted as biological variation rather than consequences of reconstruction
318 approach.

319 Assuming that reconstructed food webs are independent of model choice is particularly
320 critical to evaluate within the context of deep time palaeoecological data. Because
321 interactions in fossil ecosystems are never observed directly, and direct inferences (such
322 as gut contents) are limited, hence they must explicitly be formed through some form of
323 reconstruction approach. This necessity makes the assumptions underlying reconstruction
324 explicit, but also means that ecological narratives are especially sensitive to the chosen
325 reconstruction framework. In these settings the risk is not just incomplete data, but the
326 potential for methodological artefacts to be misinterpreted as genuine macroevolutionary
327 or palaeoecological signals. Consequently, deep time studies offer a unique and stringent
328 testing ground for determining whether community-level responses (such as stability or
329 collapse during mass extinctions) are robust features of the ecosystem or merely byproducts
330 of how we choose to construct the links between species.

331 Reconstruction framework explained far more variation in food-web topology than temporal
332 turnover across extinction and recovery phases. Across an identical regional taxon pool,
333 alternative reconstruction approaches generated distinct structural signatures that occupied
334 non-overlapping regions of multivariate space (Figure 1), demonstrating that reconstruction
335 approaches produce fundamentally different interaction architectures, independent of
336 temporal turnover in community composition. Even after centring metrics within time bins
337 to remove between-bin mean differences, reconstruction approach remained the dominant
338 driver of structural variation. These results indicate that reconstruction approaches
339 impose distinct ‘structural priors’ on ecological inference, shaping emergent topology,
340 species roles, and predictions of disturbance dynamics. Network structure is therefore
341 not solely a property of ecological communities but jointly determined by ecological data
342 and assumptions made when inferring/reconstructing interactions (Gauzens *et al.*, 2025;
343 Strydom *et al.*, 2026).

344 Crucially, this dominance was not confined to multivariate summaries. Variance partition-
345 ing at the level of individual network properties revealed that reconstruction approach
346 overwhelmingly structured specific ecological metrics, demonstrating that its influence
347 extends beyond overall topology to the individual properties commonly interpreted as

ecological signals. Notably, the few properties that exhibited detectable temporal sensitivity were also those with the greatest inter-reconstruction disagreement, indicating that temporal trends are hardest to resolve where reconstruction frameworks diverge most strongly.

These findings have important implications for comparative network studies. Because different classes of reconstruction encode different ecological assumptions, observed differences among networks may partly reflect reconstruction choice rather than ecological process (Dunne *et al.*, 2002; Curtsdotter *et al.*, 2011; Allesina & Tang, 2012; Poisot & Gravel, 2014; Michalska-Smith & Allesina, 2019). Without explicit standardisation or sensitivity analysis, methodological heterogeneity can be mistaken for biological signal. Food web ecology has devoted substantial effort to understanding how topology shapes dynamics; comparatively less attention has been paid to how reconstruction method shapes topology. Our findings indicate that these two questions cannot be separated.

4.2 Scale-dependent robustness in network-based inference

Importantly, reconstruction sensitivity was not uniform across levels of inference. Node-level extinction rankings were broadly consistent among reconstruction approaches, whereas interaction-level outcomes and cascade trajectories were highly contingent on reconstruction methods. The predominance of the reconstruction framework over temporal turnover helps explain this pattern. Different reconstruction approaches often converged on similar patterns of community vulnerability yet diverged substantially in the mechanisms through which collapse unfolded. Broad ecological patterns may be robust across plausible interaction architectures, whereas conclusions about interaction loss, retention, or reorganisation depend strongly on how interactions are inferred.

This distinction challenges a central ambition of food web ecology: using interaction structure to identify the mechanisms underlying stability and collapse. Our findings suggest that while broad patterns may be robust across reconstruction approaches, mechanistic explanations are far less secure. Had Dunhill *et al.* (2024) used a reconstruction approach other than PFWIM, the inferred drivers of extinction and recovery may have differed substantially. If extinction mechanisms vary across equally plausible reconstructions, then mechanistic narratives derived from a single inferred topology may overstate their precision (Dunne *et al.*, 2002; Curtsdotter *et al.*, 2011; Allesina & Tang, 2012). The apparent determinism of extinction cascades may therefore reflect reconstruction-imposed

380 structure as much as ecological inevitability.

381 For macroecology, this metric dependence clarifies where network-based inference is
382 accurate. Aggregate properties may be comparatively robust to reconstruction assumptions,
383 whereas conclusions about interaction turnover, motif reorganisation, or fine-scale trophic
384 dynamics are intrinsically uncertain. Recognising this asymmetry is essential if network
385 analyses are to inform comparative synthesis across space and time.

386 Taken together, these results underscore that network reconstruction is not a neutral
387 preprocessing step but an additional part of the hypothesis-generating process in which each
388 reconstruction approach encodes a distinct set of ecological assumptions. Disagreement
389 among reconstruction approaches does not imply that any single approach is ‘wrong’
390 (Petchey *et al.*, 2011; Stouffer, 2019). Rather, different frameworks emphasise different
391 ecological constraints, such as trait compatibility, energetic optimisation, or topological
392 regularity and it is a case of matching the ‘correct’ reconstruction approach to the task at
393 hand.

394 **4.3 Implications for comparative biogeography and global change** 395 **research**

396 Network approaches are increasingly applied to investigate how ecological organisation
397 varies across latitudinal gradients, environmental filters, disturbance regimes, and climate-
398 driven transitions (Tylianakis *et al.*, 2008; Gilman *et al.*, 2010). In global change ecology,
399 networks are used to project vulnerability under warming, quantify rewiring of interactions,
400 and assess stability under species loss (*e.g.*, Hao *et al.*, 2025; Marjakangas *et al.*, 2025).
401 These studies frequently interpret variation in connectance, trophic height, interaction
402 β -diversity, and robustness as evidence of ecological differentiation across regions or
403 through time (*e.g.*, Pellissier *et al.*, 2018; Trøjelsgaard & Olesen, 2016). Our results show
404 that reconstruction choice can systematically alter inferred topology and disturbance
405 dynamics even when species composition is held constant. Apparent differences in network
406 structure across spatial or climatic gradients may therefore reflect reconstruction choice
407 as much as underlying ecological processes. Comparative studies that employ different
408 reconstruction frameworks should therefore either standardise reconstruction methods or
409 explicitly quantify the sensitivity of their conclusions to alternative network representations.

4.4 Toward a more explicit modelling paradigm in food web ecology

No single reconstruction framework is universally correct. Rather, each represents a distinct hypothesis about how ecological interactions are constrained (Petchey *et al.*, 2011). Reconstruction choice should therefore be viewed as part of hypothesis specification rather than a technical step preceding analysis. Researchers must align reconstruction approaches with the ecological questions of interest (whether estimating potential interactions, realised diets, or broad structural properties) because each framework emphasises different aspects of ecological organisation.

Our results show that the consequences of these choices depend on the scale of inference. Some network-based conclusions, such as relative species vulnerability, were broadly consistent across reconstruction approaches, whereas interaction identities. This distinction suggests that network-based inference can be accurate at coarse ecological scales while remaining imprecise in its mechanistic detail. Explicitly recognising this asymmetry is essential if comparative studies are to distinguish robust ecological patterns from reconstruction-dependent artefacts.

A more mature modelling paradigm in food web ecology would therefore treat reconstruction approaches as testable hypotheses, incorporate probabilistic link inference where possible, and routinely evaluate the sensitivity of ecological conclusions to alternative representations of interaction structure. Such an approach aligns with recent advances in probabilistic and ensemble network modelling and would strengthen the interpretability of network-based inference under global change (Poisot *et al.*, 2016; Banville *et al.*, 2025).

5 Conclusions

Ecological network reconstruction is a theoretical choice that fundamentally shapes ecological inference. By applying six contrasting reconstruction frameworks to an identical species pool, we show that different reconstruction approaches systematically influence inferred food web topology, interaction identity, and disturbance dynamics. Some coarse-grained patterns, such as relative species vulnerability, are comparatively robust across reconstruction frameworks. In contrast, fine-scale interaction structure and cascade pathways are highly contingent on reconstruction approaches. The reliability of network-based inference is therefore scale dependent.

These results challenge the implicit assumption that reconstructed networks are comparable across systems — whether comparing modern communities across environmental gradients or fossil assemblages across extinction intervals. When reconstruction frameworks differ, variation in connectance, trophic organisation, robustness, or interaction turnover may reflect differences in reconstruction assumptions as much as underlying ecological processes. Network reconstruction should thus be treated as an explicit component of hypothesis specification in comparative macroecology and biogeography.

No single reconstruction approach captures the full complexity of ecological organisation, but neither are alternative reconstruction approaches interchangeable. Aligning reconstruction frameworks with inferential goals, standardising approaches across comparative studies, and incorporating ensemble or probabilistic methods will strengthen the interpretability of network analyses across spatial and temporal gradients. As ecological networks play an increasingly prominent role in global change research, recognising reconstruction as an integral component of ecological inference will be essential for moving food web ecology from descriptive reconstruction toward rigorous comparative synthesis.

Data and Code Availability Statement: The empirical data, derived network datasets, and all analysis scripts are archived in a public Zenodo repository ([DOI: 10.5281/zenodo.20444969](https://doi.org/10.5281/zenodo.20444969)), which includes a complete README file describing software dependencies, execution order, and reproduction instructions.

Acknowledgements: TS, BK, APB, and AMD received funding from NERC/NSF grant number NE/X015025/1.

References

- Allesina, S., Alonso, D. & Pascual, M. (2008) [A general model for food web structure](#). *Science*, **320**, 658–661.
- Allesina, S. & Tang, S. (2012) [Stability criteria for complex ecosystems](#). *Nature*, **483**, 205–208.
- Bambach, R.K., Bush, A.M. & Erwin, D.H. (2007) [Autecology and the filling of ecospace: Key metazoan radiations](#). *Palaeontology*, **50**, 1–22.
- Banville, F., Strydom, T., Blyth, P.S.A., Brimacombe, C., Catchen, M.D., Dansereau, G., Higino, G., Malpas, T., Mayall, H., Norman, K., Gravel, D. & Poisot, T. (2025) [Deciphering probabilistic species interaction networks](#). *Ecology Letters*, **28**, e70161.

- 472 Bezanson, J., Edelman, A., Karpinski, S. & Shah, V.B. (2017) [Julia: A fresh approach to](#)
473 [numerical computing](#). *SIAM Review*, **59**, 65–98.
- 474 Brose, U., Jonsson, T., Berlow, E.L., Warren, P., Banasek-Richter, C., Bersier, L.-
475 F., Blanchard, J.L., Brey, T., Carpenter, S.R., Blandenier, M.-F.C., Cushing, L.,
476 Dawah, H.A., Dell, T., Edwards, F., Harper-Smith, S., Jacob, U., Ledger, M.E.,
477 Martinez, N.D., Memmott, J., Mintenbeck, K., Pinnegar, J.K., Rall, B.C., Rayner,
478 T.S., Reuman, D.C., Ruess, L., Ulrich, W., Williams, R.J., Woodward, G. & Cohen,
479 J.E. (2006) [Consumer–resource body-size relationships in natural food webs](#). *Ecology*,
480 **87**, 2411–2417.
- 481 Caswell, B.A., Coe, A.L. & Cohen, A.S. (2009) [New range data for marine invertebrate](#)
482 [species across the early toarcian \(early jurassic\) mass extinction](#). *Journal of the*
483 *Geological Society*, **166**, 859–872.
- 484 Curtsdotter, A., Binzer, A., Brose, U., De Castro, F., Ebenman, B., Eklöf, A., Riede,
485 J.O., Thierry, A. & Rall, B.C. (2011) [Robustness to secondary extinctions: Comparing](#)
486 [trait-based sequential deletions in static and dynamic food webs](#). *Basic and Applied*
487 *Ecology*, **12**, 571–580.
- 488 Delmas, E., Besson, M., Brice, M.-H., Burkle, L.A., Dalla Riva, G.V., Fortin, M.-J.,
489 Gravel, D., Guimarães, P.R., Hembry, D.H., Newman, E.A., Olesen, J.M., Pires, M.M.,
490 Yeakel, J.D. & Poisot, T. (2018) [Analysing ecological networks of species interactions](#).
491 *Biological Reviews*, 112540.
- 492 Dunhill, A.M., Zarzychny, K., Shaw, J.O., Atkinson, J.W., Little, C.T.S. & Beckerman,
493 A.P. (2024) [Extinction cascades, community collapse, and recovery across a mesozoic](#)
494 [hyperthermal event](#). *Nature Communications*, **15**, 8599.
- 495 Dunne, J.A., Labandeira, C.C. & Williams, R.J. (2014) [Highly resolved early eocene food](#)
496 [webs show development of modern trophic structure after the end-cretaceous extinction](#).
497 *Proceedings of the Royal Society B: Biological Sciences*, **281**, 20133280.
- 498 Dunne, J.A., Williams, R.J. & Martinez, N.D. (2002) Network structure and biodiversity
499 loss in food webs: Robustness increases with connectance. *Ecol. Lett.*, **5**, 558–567.
- 500 Dunne, J.A., Williams, R.J., Martinez, N.D., Wood, R.A. & Erwin, D.H. (2008) [Compila-](#)
501 [tion and network analyses of cambrian food webs](#). *PLOS Biology*, **6**, e102.
- 502 Erdős, P. & Rényi, A. (1959) [On random graphs. i](#). *Publicationes Mathematicae Debrecen*,
503 **6**, 290–297.
- 504 Fricke, E.C., Hsieh, C., Middleton, O., Gorczynski, D., Cappello, C.D., Sanisidro, O.,
505 Rowan, J., Svenning, J.-C. & Beaudrot, L. (2022) [Collapse of terrestrial mammal food](#)

506 webs since the late pleistocene. *Science*, **377**, 1008–1011.

507 Fründ, J., McCann, K.S. & Williams, N.M. (2016) Sampling bias is a challenge for
508 quantifying specialization and network structure: Lessons from a quantitative niche
509 model. *Oikos*, **125**, 502–513.

510 Gauzens, B., Brose, U., Delmas, E. & Berti, E. (2023) ATNr: Allometric trophic network
511 models in r. *Methods in Ecology and Evolution*, **14**, 2766–2773.

512 Gauzens, B., Thouvenot, L., Srivastava, D.S., Kratina, P., Romero, G.Q., Berti, E.,
513 O’Gorman, E.J., González, A.L., Dézerald, O., Eisenhauer, N., Pires, M., Ryser, R.,
514 Farjalla, V.F., Rogy, P., Brose, U., Petermann, J.S., Geslin, B. & Hines, J. (2025)
515 Tailoring interaction network types to answer different ecological questions. *Nature*
516 *Reviews Biodiversity*, 1–10.

517 Gilman, S.E., Urban, M.C., Tewksbury, J., Gilchrist, G.W. & Holt, R.D. (2010) A
518 framework for community interactions under climate change. *Trends in Ecology &*
519 *Evolution*, **25**, 325–331.

520 Gravel, D., Baiser, B., Dunne, J.A., Kopelke, J.-P., Martinez, N.D., Nyman, T., Poisot, T.,
521 Stouffer, D.B., Tylianakis, J.M., Wood, S.A. & Roslin, T. (2019) Bringing elton and
522 grinnell together: A quantitative framework to represent the biogeography of ecological
523 interaction networks. *Ecography*, **42**, 401–415.

524 Guimarães, P.R. (2020) The structure of ecological networks across levels of organization.
525 *Annual Review of Ecology, Evolution, and Systematics*, **51**.

526 Hao, X., Holyoak, M., Zhang, Z. & Yan, C. (2025) Global projection of terrestrial vertebrate
527 food webs under future climate and land-use changes. *Global Change Biology*, **31**,
528 e70061.

529 Jordano, P. (2016) Sampling networks of ecological interactions. *Functional Ecology*.

530 Kemp, D.B., Han, Z., Hu, X., Chen, W., Jin, S., Izumi, K., Yan, Q., Baranyi, V., Jin, X.,
531 Corso, J.D. & Ge, Y. (2024) Global hydroclimate perturbations during the toarcian
532 oceanic anoxic event. *Earth-Science Reviews*, **258**, 104946.

533 Little, C.T.S. & Benton, M.J. (1995) Early jurassic mass extinction: A global long-term
534 event. *Geology*, **23**, 495.

535 Marjakangas, E.-L., Dalsgaard, B. & Ordonez, A. (2025) Fundamental interaction niches:
536 Towards a functional understanding of ecological networks’ resilience. *Ecology Letters*,
537 **28**, e70146.

538 Michalska-Smith, M.J. & Allesina, S. (2019) Telling ecological networks apart by their
539 structure: A computational challenge. *PLOS Computational Biology*, **15**, e1007076.

540 Milo, R., Shen-Orr, S., Itzkovitz, S., Kashtan, N., Chklovskii, D. & Alon, U. (2002)
541 [Network motifs: Simple building blocks of complex networks](#). *Science*, **298**, 824–827.

542 Morales-Castilla, I., Matias, M.G., Gravel, D. & Araújo, M.B. (2015) [Inferring biotic](#)
543 [interactions from proxies](#). *Trends in Ecology & Evolution*, **30**, 347–356.

544 Pellissier, L., Albouy, C., Bascompte, J., Farwig, N., Graham, C., Loreau, M., Maglianesi,
545 M.A., Melián, C.J., Pitteloud, C., Roslin, T., Rohr, R., Saavedra, S., Thuiller, W.,
546 Woodward, G., Zimmermann, N.E. & Gravel, D. (2018) [Comparing species interaction](#)
547 [networks along environmental gradients](#). *Biological Reviews*, **93**, 785–800.

548 Petchey, O.L., Beckerman, A.P., Riede, J.O. & Warren, P.H. (2011) [Fit, efficiency, and](#)
549 [biology: Some thoughts on judging food web models](#). *Journal of Theoretical Biology*,
550 **279**, 169–171.

551 Petchey, O.L., Beckerman, A.P., Riede, J.O. & Warren, P.H. (2008) [Size, foraging, and](#)
552 [food web structure](#). *Proceedings of the National Academy of Sciences*, **105**, 4191–4196.

553 Poisot, T., Bergeron, G., Cazelles, K., Dallas, T., Gravel, D., MacDonald, A., Mercier, B.,
554 Violet, C. & Vissault, S. (2021) [Global knowledge gaps in species interaction networks](#)
555 [data](#). *Journal of Biogeography*, jbi.14127.

556 Poisot, T., Canard, E., Mouillot, D., Mouquet, N. & Gravel, D. (2012) [The dissimilarity](#)
557 [of species interaction networks](#). *Ecology Letters*, **15**, 1353–1361.

558 Poisot, T., Cirtwill, A., Cazelles, K., Gravel, D., Fortin, M.-J. & Stouffer, D. (2016) [The](#)
559 [structure of probabilistic networks](#). *Methods in Ecology and Evolution*, **7**, 303312.

560 Poisot, T. & Gravel, D. (2014) [When is an ecological network complex? Connectance](#)
561 [drives degree distribution and emerging network properties](#). *PeerJ*, **2**, e251.

562 Poisot, T., Stouffer, D.B. & Gravel, D. (2015) [Beyond species: Why ecological interaction](#)
563 [networks vary through space and time](#). *Oikos*, **124**, 243–251.

564 R Core Team (2024) [R: A language and environment for statistical computing](#), R Foundation
565 for Statistical Computing, Vienna, Austria.

566 Rohr, R., Scherer, H., Kehrli, P., Mazza, C. & Bersier, L.-F. (2010) [Modeling food webs:](#)
567 [Exploring unexplained structure using latent traits](#). *The American Naturalist*, **176**,
568 170–177.

569 Roopnarine, P.D. (2006) [Extinction cascades and catastrophe in ancient food webs](#).
570 *Paleobiology*, **32**, 1–19.

571 Sandra, H.-P., Traveset, A., Nogales, M., Heleno, R., Llewelyn, J. & Strona, G. (2025)
572 [Sampling biases across interaction types affect the robustness of ecological multilayer](#)
573 [networks](#). *Ecological Informatics*, 103183.

- Schneider, F.D., Brose, U., Rall, B.C. & Guillo, C. (2016) [Animal diversity and ecosystem functioning in dynamic food webs](#). *Nature Communications*, **7**, 12718.
- Shaw, J.O., Dunhill, A.M., Beckerman, A.P., Dunne, J.A. & Hull, P.M. (2024) [A framework for reconstructing ancient food webs using functional trait data](#). 2024.01.30.578036.
- Smith, Q.A., Tomé, C.P., Gearty, W., Smith, F.A., Shizuka, D. & Lyons, S.K. (2025) [Consequences of the megafauna extinction: Changes in food web networks on the edwards plateau across the pleistocene–holocene transition](#). *Global Ecology and Biogeography*, **34**, e70113.
- Stouffer, D.B. (2019) [All ecological models are wrong, but some are useful](#). *Journal of Animal Ecology*, **88**, 192–195.
- Stouffer, D.B., Camacho, J., Jiang, W. & Nunes Amaral, L.A. (2007) [Evidence for the existence of a robust pattern of prey selection in food webs](#). *Proceedings of the Royal Society B: Biological Sciences*, **274**, 1931–1940.
- Strydom, T., Catchen, M.D., Banville, F., Caron, D., Dansereau, G., Desjardins-Proulx, P., Forero-Muñoz, N.R., Higinio, G., Mercier, B., Gonzalez, A., Gravel, D., Pollock, L. & Poisot, T. (2021) [A roadmap towards predicting species interaction networks \(across space and time\)](#). *Philosophical Transactions of the Royal Society B: Biological Sciences*, **376**, 20210063.
- Strydom, T., Dunhill, A.M., Dunne, J.A., Poisot, T. & Beckerman, A.P. (2026) [From metawebs to realised webs: A framework for ecological network representation under global change](#). *EcoEvoRxiv*.
- Thuiller, W., Calderón-Sanou, I., Chalmandrier, L., Gaüzère, P., O'Connor, L.M.J., Ohlmann, M., Poggiato, G. & Münkemüller, T. (2024) [Navigating the integration of biotic interactions in biogeography](#). *Journal of Biogeography*, **51**, 550–559.
- Trøjelsgaard, K. & Olesen, J.M. (2016) [Ecological networks in motion: Micro- and macroscopic variability across scales](#). *Functional Ecology*, **30**, 1926–1935.
- Tylianakis, J.M., Didham, R.K., Bascompte, J. & Wardle, D.A. (2008) [Global change and species interactions in terrestrial ecosystems](#). *Ecology Letters*, **11**, 1351–1363.
- Tylianakis, J.M. & Morris, R.J. (2017) [Ecological networks across environmental gradients](#). *Annual Review of Ecology, Evolution, and Systematics*, **48**, 25–48.
- Williams, R.J. & Martinez, N.D. (2000) [Simple rules yield complex food webs](#). *Nature*, **404**, 180–183.
- Williams, R.J. & Martinez, N.D. (2004) [Stabilization of chaotic and non-permanent food-web dynamics](#). *The European Physical Journal B - Condensed Matter*, **38**,

- 608 297–303.
- 609 Williams, R.J. & Martinez, N.D. (2008) [Success and its limits among structural models of](#)
610 [complex food webs](#). *The Journal of Animal Ecology*, **77**, 512–519.
- 611 Yeakel, J.D., Pires, M.M., Rudolf, L., Dominy, N.J., Koch, P.L., Guimarães, P.R. & Gross,
612 T. (2014) [Collapse of an ecological network in ancient egypt](#). *PNAS*, **111**, 14472–14477.

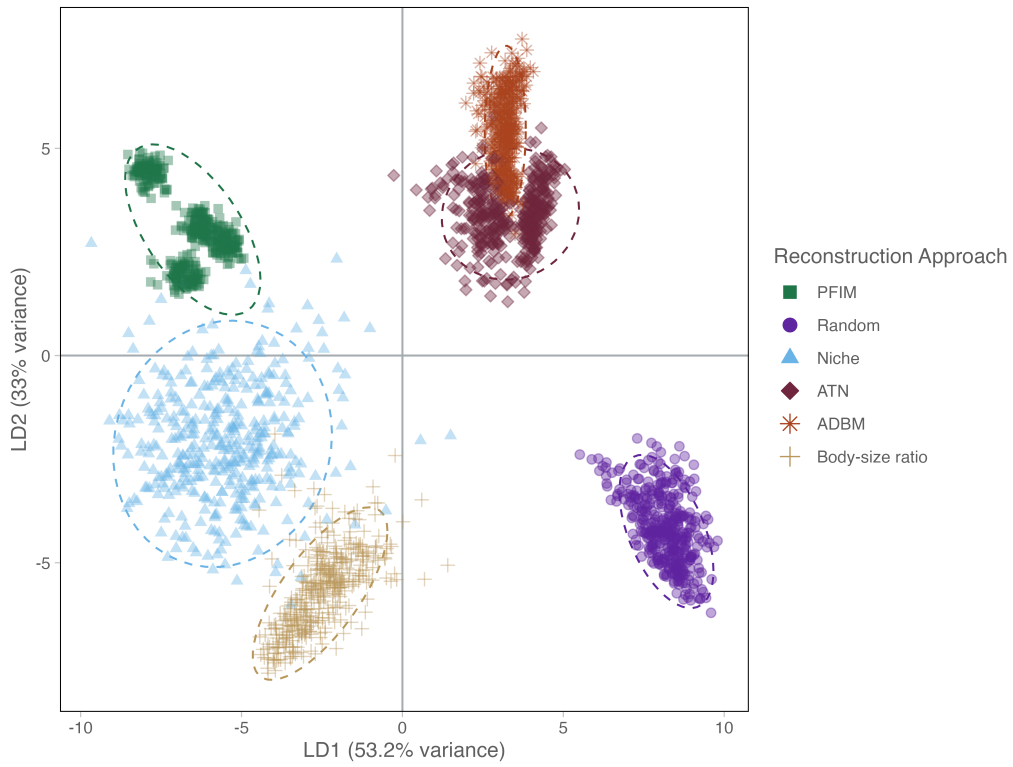


Figure 1: Linear discriminant analysis (LDA) of ecological network metrics for six reconstruction approach types. Each point represents a replicate ($n = 400$ per approach), and ellipses indicate 95% confidence regions for each reconstruction approach.

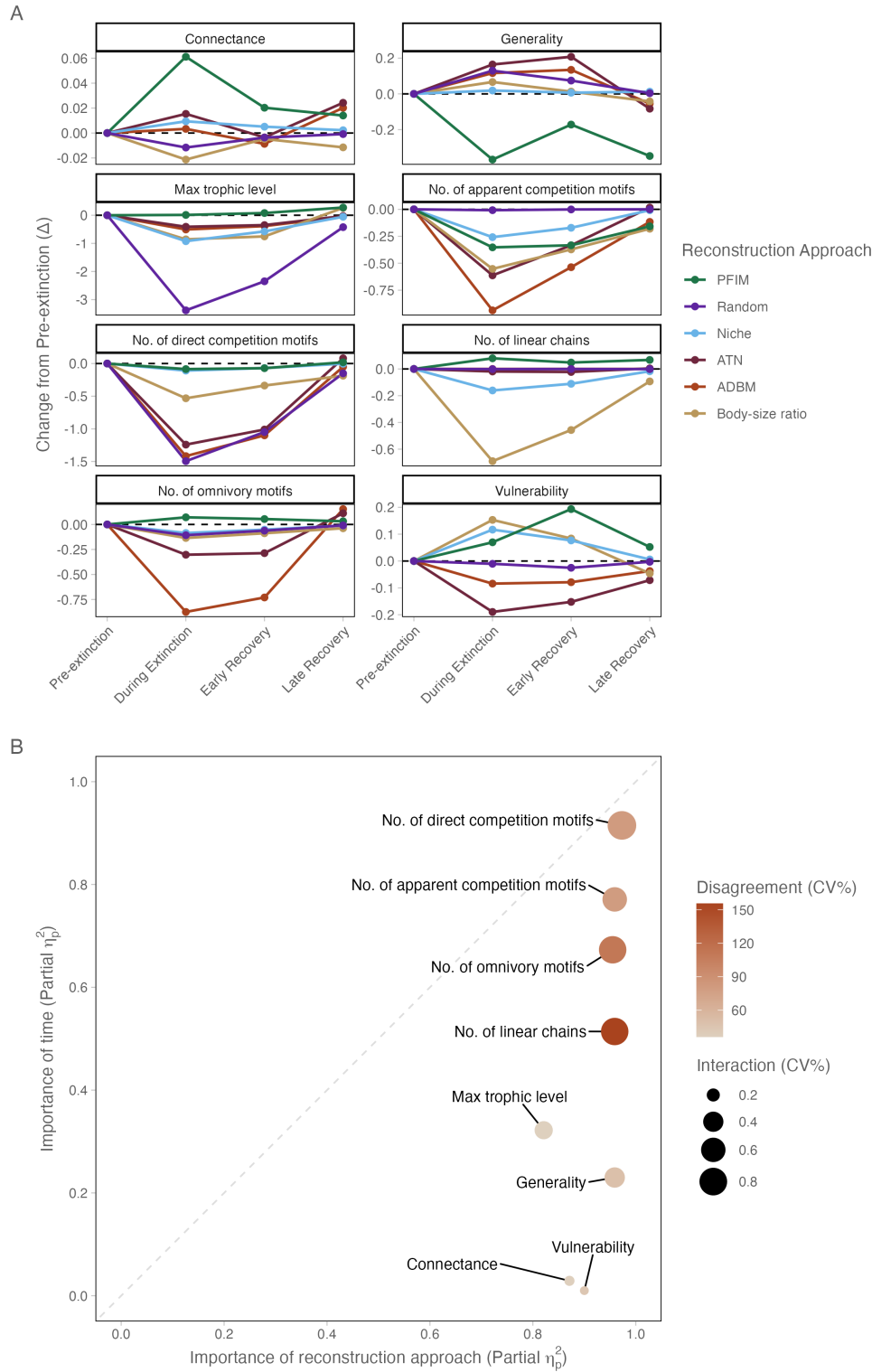


Figure 2: Figure 2: Temporal changes in food-web structure and the relative influence of reconstruction approach and ecological turnover on network properties. **(A)** Changes in network metrics through time, expressed as deviations from pre-extinction conditions (δ). Metrics are faceted and scaled independently to highlight differences in temporal trajectories among network properties. **(B)** Relative influence of reconstruction approach (x-axis) and time (y-axis) on individual network metrics. The dashed 1:1 line indicates equal explanatory power. Metrics below the line are more strongly influenced by reconstruction approach than by temporal turnover. Bubble size represents the reconstruction approach $\times$ time interaction, and colour indicates disagreement among reconstruction approaches (mean CV%), with darker colours indicating greater divergence in metric estimates.

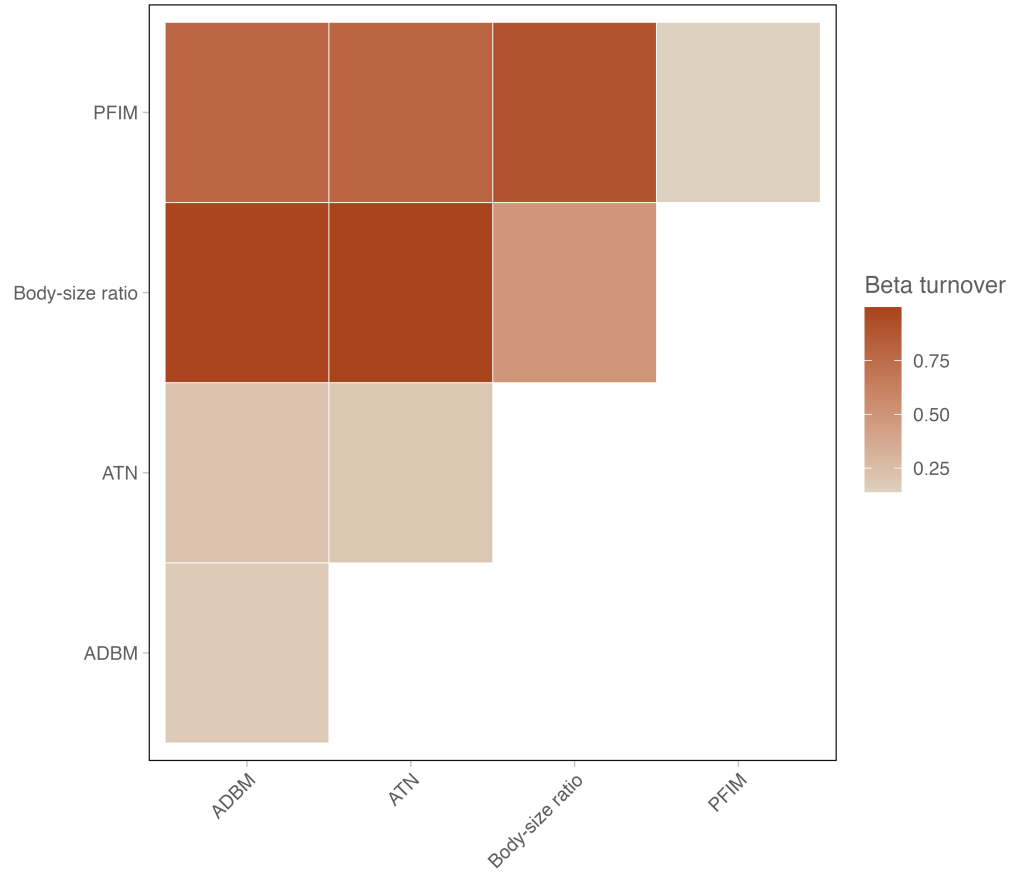


Figure 3: Pairwise interaction turnover (β_{OS}) among four food-web reconstruction approaches that infer species-specific trophic interactions (ADBM, ATN, Body-size Ratio, and PFWIM). Each cell represents the mean turnover value between a pair of reconstruction approaches, with darker colours indicating greater dissimilarity in inferred interactions. High turnover values indicate strong disagreement in predicted trophic links, whereas lower values indicate greater similarity.

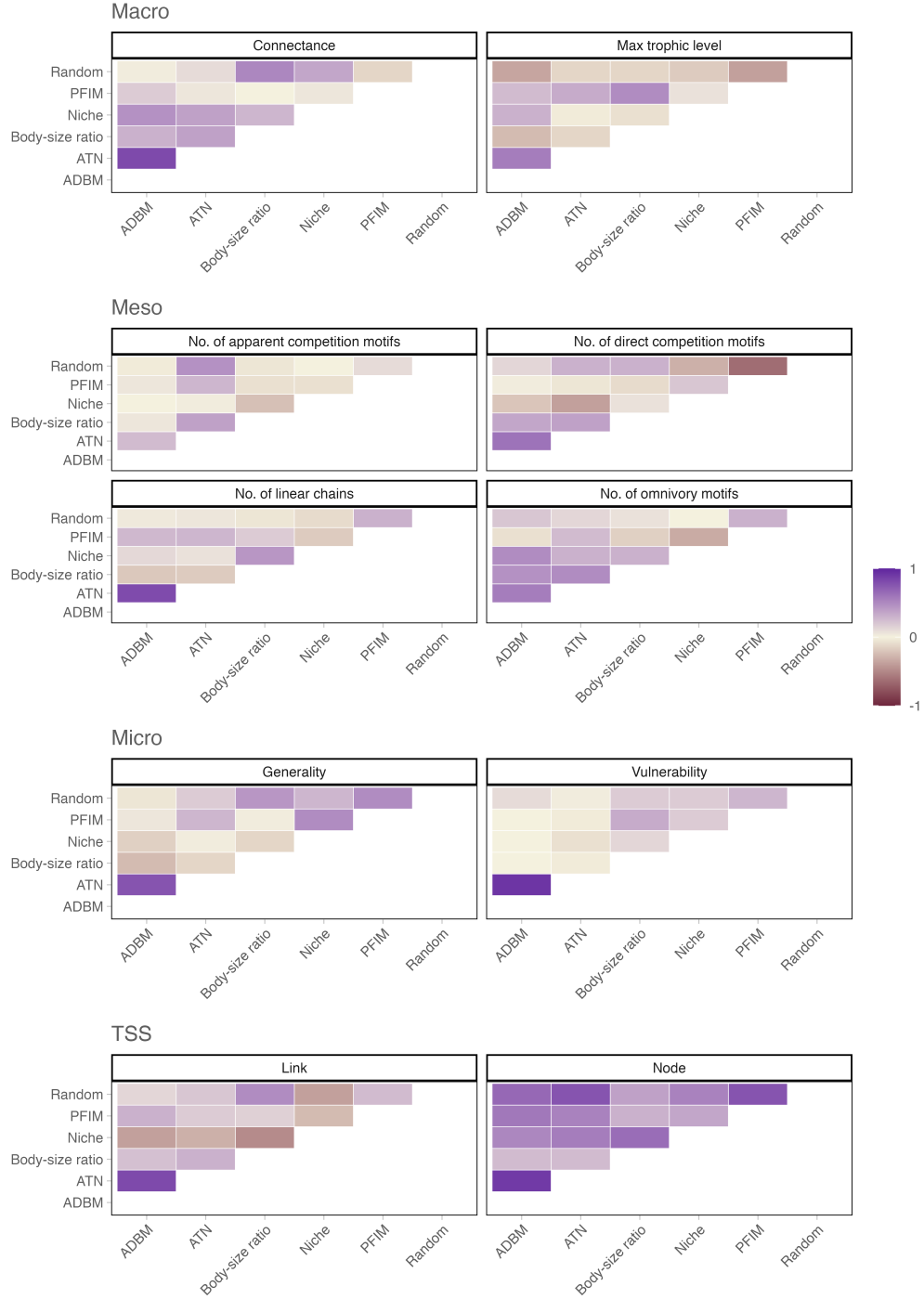


Figure 4: Heatmaps showing pairwise Kendall rank correlation coefficients (τ) between reconstruction approaches for each network metric. Each panel corresponds to a different metric and displays the degree of agreement in extinction-scenario rankings across reconstruction approaches based on mean absolute differences (MAD) between observed and predicted network values as well as differences in species links (TSS). Positive τ values (purple) indicate concordant rankings between reconstruction approaches, whereas negative τ values (sienna) indicate opposing rankings. Paler colours approaching zero represent little or no agreement.